Differential Geometry

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Lecture 1

1 Manifolds

The concept of a manifold is intended to generalise curves and surfaces in $\mathbb{R}^3$.

Definition 1.0.1 (smooth structure)

A *smooth structure* on a topological space M is a collection of *charts* (an *atlas*)

$$\varphi_\alpha : U_\alpha \to V_\alpha$$

where $U_\alpha \subseteq M$, $V_\alpha \subseteq \mathbb{R}^d$ are open, φ_α is a homeomorphism, such that

1. $M = \bigcup_\alpha U_\alpha$. That is, the charts cover M.
2. Given any charts $\varphi_\alpha, \varphi_\beta$, the map

$$\varphi_\beta \circ \varphi_\alpha^{-1} : \varphi_\alpha(U_\alpha \cap U_\beta) \to \varphi_\beta(U_\alpha \cap U_\beta)$$

   is a smooth map between open subsets of $\mathbb{R}^d$.
3. If φ is *compatible* (as in the previous point) with every chart in the atlas, then φ is a chart in the atlas.

In practice (i.e. using Zorn's lemma), given any collection of charts satisfying the first two conditions, we can find a maximal atlas containing it.

Remark 1.0.2. 1. The second condition implies that $\varphi_\beta \circ \varphi_\alpha^{-1}$ is a diffeomorphism.
2. d is fixed, assuming that M is connected.

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Definition 1.0.3 (manifold)

A *(smooth) manifold* M is a second countable Huasdorff space topological space, equipped with a smooth structure.

$d = \dim(M)$ is the *dimension* of M.

In practice, we may induce a topology on M from a smooth structure (without the mention of open or homeomorphism), then $D \subseteq M$ is open if for any chart φ_α, $\varphi_\alpha(D \cap U_\alpha)$ is an open subseteq of $\mathbb{R}^d$.

Remark 1.0.4.

1. We can also define a C^k manifold by replacing smooth with C^k as above. If $k = 0$, then we have a *topological manifold*.
2. On the other hand, we can replace $\mathbb{R}^d$ with $\mathbb{C}^n$, and obtain a *complex manifold*.

$\mathbb{R}^n$ is (trivially) a manifold.

Example 1.0.5 (unit sphere)

Define

$$S^n = \{x = (x_0, \dots, x_n) \in \mathbb{R}^n \mid ||x|| = 1\} \subseteq \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$$

For the charts, we can consider the stereographic projections

$$\varphi(x) = \frac{1}{1 - x_0}(x_1, \dots, x_n) \qquad \text{for } x_0 \neq 1$$

and

$$\psi(x) = \frac{1}{1 + x_0}(x_1, \dots, x_n) \qquad \text{for } x_0 \neq -1$$

In particular,

$$\psi \circ \varphi^{-1}(u) = \frac{u}{||u||^2}$$

Example 1.0.6

If M, N are manifolds of dimensions d, e respectively, then $M \times N$ is a manifold of dimension $d + e$.

As a corollary, $T^n = (S^1)^n$ is a manifold.

Example 1.0.7

If M is a manifold, $X \subseteq M$ is open, then X is a manifold.

Lecture 2

A convention, we will will assume for any manifold M, we will assume all components are of the same dimension. In particular, $\dim(M)$ is well defined.

Notation 1.0.8. We will write M^d to say M is a manifold of dimension d.

Example 1.0.9 (real projective space)

The real projective space is

$$\mathbb{RP}^n = \{\text{straight lines in } \mathbb{R}^{n+1} \text{ through } 0\}$$

Points in $\mathbb{RP}^n$ can be written using homogeneous coordinates $(x_0 : \cdots : x_n)$, where the x_i are not all zero, and

$$(x_0 : \cdots : x_n) = (\lambda x_0 : \cdots : \lambda x_n)$$

for all $\lambda \neq 0$. We will induce a topology from a smooth structure. The charts are given by (φ_i, U_i) where

$$U_i = \{x_i \neq 0\}$$

and we define

$$\varphi_i(x_0 : \cdots : x_n) = \left(\frac{x_0}{x_i}, \ldots, \frac{x_{i-1}}{x_i}, \frac{x_{i+1}}{x_i}, \ldots, \frac{x_n}{x_i}\right) \in \mathbb{R}^n$$

For $i < j$,

$$\varphi_j \circ \varphi_i^{-1}(y_0, \ldots, y_n) = \left(\frac{y_1}{y_j}, \ldots, \frac{1}{y_j}, \ldots, \frac{y_n}{y_j}\right)$$

where the 1 is in the i-th position, and we omit the j-th position. Thus, $\mathbb{RP}^n$ is an n-dimensional manifold. Similarly, we can define the complex projective space $\mathbb{CP}^n$, which is a $2n$-manifold (and a n-dimensional complex manifold).

Example 1.0.10 (Grassmannian)

$$\mathrm{Gr}(k, n) = \{k\text{-dimensional subspaces of } \mathbb{R}^n\}$$

Then $\mathrm{Gr}(k, n)$ is a manifold of dimension $k(n-k)$. Note we can also define the Grassmannian over $\mathbb{C}$.

Sketch proof. An example of a coordinate neighbourhood is

$$U = \left\{k\text{-dimensional subspaces obtainable as the span of rows of } k \times n \text{ matrices of the form } \begin{pmatrix} I_k & * \end{pmatrix}\right\}$$

where I_k is the $k \times k$ identity matrix. In this case, the $k \times (n-k)$ block $*$ defines local coordinates. Choosing different columns, we have $\binom{n}{k}$ neighbourhoods, $U_{i_1,\ldots,i_k}$, where $i_1 < i_2 < \cdots < i_k$. □

In particular, note that $\mathbb{RP}^n = \mathrm{Gr}(1, n+1)$.

Example 1.0.11 (Non-example)

Consider an equivalence relation on $\mathbb{R}^2$ given by

$$(x, y) \sim \left(\lambda x, \frac{1}{\lambda} y\right)$$

for any $\lambda \neq 0$. Let $X = \mathbb{R}^2/\sim$ for the quotient, with the quotient topology. We can consider

$$\{(x, y) \mid xy = c\}$$

If $c \neq 0$, then this is one equivalence class. If $c = 0$, this splits into three, which are

- $\{(0, 0)\}$,
- $\{(x, 0) \mid x \neq 0\}$,
- $\{(0, y) \mid y \neq 0\}$

We can write

$$X = (-\infty, 0) \cup (0, \infty) \cup \{0', 0'', 0'''\}$$

We have three charts φ_i corresponding to each choice of zero. For example,

$$U_1 = (-\infty, 0) \cup \{0'\} \cup (0, \infty)$$

with the "natural" map φ_1. On the other hand, the induced topology is not Hausdorff. Note the induced topology is *not* the quotient topology.

Refer to Examples Sheet 1 Question 12 for an example of a non-second countable (non-)example.

Definition 1.0.12 (smooth map)

Let M, N be manifolds, a continuous map $f : M \to N$ is *smooth* if for any $p \in M$, we can find charts (φ, U) near p, (ψ, V) near $f(p)$, and the composition

$$\psi \circ f \circ \varphi^{-1}$$

is smooth. as a map on

$$\varphi(U \cap f^{-1}(V))$$

Definition 1.0.13 (diffeomorphism)

A smooth map $f : M \to N$ is a *diffeomorphism* if f is a bijection, and f^{-1} is smooth. In this case, we say that M, N are *diffeomorphic*.

Proposition 1.0.14.

1. If $U \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$, then $f : U \to \mathbb{R}^m$ is smooth in the above definition if and only if it is smooth in the sense of multi-variate calculus.
2. Every chart $\varphi : U \to \varphi(U) \subseteq \mathbb{R}^d$ is a smooth map of manifolds. Moreover, it is a diffeomorphism.
3. If $f : M \to N$, $g : N \to P$ are smooth, then $g \circ f : M \to P$ is smooth.

Proof. Obvious, and so omitted. □

1.1 Matrix Lie groups

Consider the group $\mathrm{GL}(n, \mathbb{R}) \subseteq \mathbb{R}^{n^2}$. In fact, this is an open subset, and so it is a manifold. Moreover, matrix multiplication and inversion are smooth.

Definition 1.1.1 (Lie group)

A group G is called a *Lie group* if

- G is a manifold,
- the multiplication map $G \times G \to G$ is smooth,
- inversion $G \to G$ is smooth.

Remark 1.1.2. Suffices to show that the map

$$G \times G \ni (\sigma, \tau) \mapsto \sigma\tau^{-1} \in G$$

is smooth.

In particular, $\mathrm{GL}(n, \mathbb{R}$ is a Lie group. Similarly, $\mathrm{GL}(n, \mathbb{C})$ is also a Lie group. More generally, for $A = (a_{ij}) \in \mathrm{Mat}_n(\mathbb{C})$, we define the norm $\|A\| = n \max_{i,j} |i, j|$. (Note in finite dimensional, all norms are equivalent). In particular,

$$\|AB\| \leq \|A\|\|B\|$$

We define the *exponential of* A as

$$\exp(A) = \sum_k \frac{A^k}{k!}$$

This series converges for all A, by the same proof as for $\exp : \mathbb{C} \to \mathbb{C}$ (or more generally, any Banach algebra). Moreover, it converges uniformly on balls

$$\{\|A\| \leq R\}$$

by the Weierstrass M-test. In particular, $\exp : \mathrm{Mat}_n(\mathbb{C}) \to \mathrm{Mat}_n(\mathbb{C})$ is continuous.

First of all, note that

$$f(A) = A^n$$

is a differentiable function, with

$$\left\|(\mathrm{d}f)_A\right\| \leq n|A|^{n-1}$$

Therefore, the series which we get by differentiating term by term, converges uniformly on any bounded set, again by the Weierstrass M-test.

Therefore, $\exp(A)$ is (at least) C^1 on $\mathrm{Mat}_n(\mathbb{C})$. We can similarly consider the higher derivatives, and we find that $\exp(A)$ is C^∞.

Remark 1.1.3. Some basic properties of the matrix exponential:

1. $\exp\left(A^{\mathsf{T}}\right) = \exp(A)^{\mathsf{T}}$,
2. $\exp(A^*) = \exp(A^*)$,
3. $\exp\left(CAC^{-1}\right) = C\exp(A)C^{-1}$,

In general,

$$\exp(A+B) = \exp(A)\exp(B)$$

does not hold. However, it does hold if $AB = BA$. In particular,

4. $\exp(A)\exp(-A) = \exp(-A)\exp(A) = I$

We can also define the *matrix logarithm* via the series

$$\log(I+A) = \sum_m (-1)^{m+1}\frac{A^m}{m}$$

We can show that this converges absolutely and uniformly on $\{|A| < \varepsilon\}$ for any $0 < \varepsilon < 1$. The same result holds for the term by term differentiation, and again we get that $\log(I+A)$ is C^∞ on $\{|A| < 1\}$

Suppose $\log(A)$ is defined, that is, $|A - I| < 1$, then

$$\exp(\log(A)) = A$$

since the same proof as in $\mathbb{C}$ works for any Banach algebra.

On the other hand, if we would like

$$\log(\exp(A)) = A$$

we clearly need $|\exp(A) - I| < 1$. Suppose

$$A_\theta = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & -\theta \\ \theta & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

for some $\theta \in \mathbb{R}$. In particular,

$$A_\theta^2 = -\theta^2 I$$

and we find that

$$\exp(A_\theta) = \begin{pmatrix} \cos(\theta) & -\sin(\theta) \\ \sin(\theta) & \cos(\theta) \end{pmatrix}$$

Setting $\theta = 2\pi$, then we find that $\exp(A_{2\pi}) = I$, but

$$\log(\exp(A_{2\pi})) = \log(I) = 0 \neq A_{2\pi}$$

Hence $|\exp(A) - I| < 1$ is a necessary, but not sufficient. On the other hand, $|A| < \log(2)$ is sufficient, since in this case,

$$\left|e^{|A|} - 1\right| < 1$$

which is required for absolute convergence.

Example 1.1.4 (orthogonal group)

Consider

$$O(n) = \left\{A \in \mathrm{GL}(n, \mathbb{R}) \mid AA^{\mathsf{T}} = A^{\mathsf{T}}A = I\right\}$$

We will show that $O(n)$ is a Lie group. Let A be an orthogonal matrix, $|A - I| < \varepsilon < 1$, then $B = \log(A)$ is defined. Moreover, $\exp(B) = A$. By continuity, we can take ε small enough such that $|B| < \log(2)$. Now

$$\exp(B)\exp\left(B^{\mathsf{T}}\right) = AA^{\mathsf{T}} = \mathrm{id}$$

and so

$$\exp(B) = A = (A^{\mathsf{T}})^{-1} = \exp\left(B^{\mathsf{T}}\right)^{-1} = \exp\left(-B^{\mathsf{T}}\right)$$

Taking log, since $|B| = \left|B^{\mathsf{T}}\right| < \log(2)$, we see that $B = -B^{\mathsf{T}}$.

Conversely, if B is skew-symmetric, with $|B| < \log(2)$, then

$$\exp(B)\exp\left(B^{\mathsf{T}}\right) = I$$

Define

$$V_0 = \left\{B \in \mathrm{Mat}_n(\mathbb{R}) \mid |B| < \log(2), B^{\mathsf{T}} + B = 0\right\}$$

and define

$$U = \exp(V_0)$$

which is an open neighbourhood of $I \in O(n)$.

Proposition 1.1.5. $O(n)$ has a C^∞ structure, making it into a manifold and a Lie group, with dimension $n(n-1)/2$.

Proof. We will use the subspace topology induced from $O(n) \subseteq \mathbb{R}^{n^2}$. Define

$$\begin{aligned} h : U &\to V_0 \\ h(A) &= \log(A) \end{aligned}$$

This is a homeomorphism onto its image, which is an open neighbourhood of $0 \in \mathfrak{so}(n) \cong \mathbb{R}^{n(n-1)/2}$.

Given $C \in O(n)$, define

$$U_C = \{CA \mid A \in U\}$$

and

$$\begin{aligned} h_C : U_C &\to V_0 \\ h_C(A) &= \log\left(C^{-1}A\right) \end{aligned}$$

Again, this is a homeomorphism onto its image. Since $C \in U_C$, we have an open cover. Moreover,

$$h_{C_2} \circ h_{C_1}^{-1}(B) = h_{C_2}(C_1\exp(B)) = \log\left(C_2^{-1}C_2\exp(B)\right)$$

which is a smooth map between open neighbourhoods of $\mathfrak{so}(n)$. Therefore, $O(n)$ is a smooth manifold. Similarly, for consider the map

$$F(A_1, A_2) = A_1A_2^{-1}$$

In local coordinates,

$$\begin{aligned} F_{\mathrm{loc}}(B_1, B_2) &= h_{C_1C_2^{-1}}(F(h_{C_1}^{-1}(B_1), h_{C_2}^{-1}(B_2))) \\ &= \log\left((C_1C_2^{-1})^{-1}C_1\exp(B_1)(C_2\exp(B_2))^{-1}\right) \\ &= \log\left(C_2\exp(B_1)\exp(-B_2)C_2^{-1}\right) \end{aligned}$$

and we can see that this is a smooth map as a function of B_1, B_2. □

This method works for more groups, and is sometimes called the Cayley construction (for matrix Lie groups).

2 Tangent spaces to manifolds

Consider a local curve in a ball in $\mathbb{R}^n$, defined by a smooth parametrisation $x(t) = (x_1(t), \dots, x_n(t))$. Suppose we have that $x(0) = p \in \mathbb{R}^n$. In this case, its tangent vector at p is

$$\dot{x}(0) \in \mathbb{R}^n$$

If $y(x)$ is a smooth change of coordinates near p, then by the chain rule, we have

$$\left.\frac{\mathrm{d}}{\mathrm{d}t}\right|_{t=0} y(x(t)) = J(y)_p \dot{x}(0)$$

where $J(y)$ is the Jacobian matrix. More explicitly,

$$\dot{y}_i(0) = \sum_j \frac{\partial y_j}{\partial x_j} \dot{x}_j(0)$$

Definition 2.0.1 (tangent vector)

A *tangent vector* a to a manifold M^n at a point $p \in M$, is an assignment to each coordinate chart (U, φ) with $p \in U$, an n-tuple of coordinates $(a_1, \dots, a_n) \in \mathbb{R}^n$, such that if (U', φ') is another chart near p, $(x_i), (x_i')$ the respective local coordinates,

$$a_i' = \sum_j \frac{\partial x_i'}{\partial x_j} a_j$$

This definition is called the *tensorial definition*, where we focus on the transformation law. There are several other definitions, for example, derivations, equivalence of curves to first order and so on.

Definition 2.0.2 (tangent space)

The *tangent space* to M at a point p, denoted T_pM is the space of all tangent vectors to M at p. It is naturally a vector space (of dimension n over $\mathbb{R}$).

Lecture 4

A choice of chart (with local coordinates (x_i) say), determines a linear isomorphism

$$\mathrm{T}_pM \to \mathbb{R}^n$$

where $n = \dim(M)$. We denote by $\frac{\partial}{\partial x_i}$, the basis corrsponding to the usual standard basis of $\mathbb{R}^n$, under this linear isomorphism.

If we want to emphasise the point $p \in M$, we may write

$$\left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x_i}\right)_p \text{ or } \left.\frac{\partial}{\partial x_i}\right|_p$$

Then by the usual linear algebra, we have that

$$\left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x_i}\right)_p = \sum_j \left(\frac{\partial x_j'}{\partial x_i}\right)_p \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x_j'}\right)_p$$

An alternative view on tangent vectors is as *derivations*. Given

$$a = \sum a_i \frac{\partial}{\partial x_i} \in \mathrm{T}_pM$$

we can define a *first-order derivation* at p,

$$a : C^\infty(M) \to \mathbb{R}$$

where

$$a(f) = \sum_i a_i \frac{\partial f}{\partial x_i}$$

in local coordinates. This definition is independent of the choice of local coordinates. We can define this in a coordinate independent way, by defining

$$a(f) = \left.\frac{\mathrm{d}}{\mathrm{d}t}\right|_{t=0} f(x(t))$$

where x is a local curve on M, with $\dot{x}(0) = a$. Moreover, every derivation satisfies the *Leibniz rule*

$$a(fg) = f \cdot a(g) + a(f) \cdot g$$

Conversely, every linear map $a : C^\infty(M) \to \mathbb{R}$ satisfying the Leibniz rule above arises as a derivation corresponding to a tangent vector.

Example 2.0.3

Let $r : \mathbb{R}^2_{u,v} \supseteq D \to S \subseteq \mathbb{R}^3$ be a regular parametrisation for a surface S. Then $\varphi = r^{-1}$ defines a chart. The partial derivatives r_u, r_v correspond to

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial u}, \frac{\partial}{\partial v}$$

respectively.

For a Lie group G, the tangent spaces has an "infinitessimal counterpart" of the group structure.

Definition 2.0.4 (Lie algebra)

A *Lie algebra* is a vector space $\mathfrak{g}$, wiht a bilinear map

$$[\cdot, \cdot] : \mathfrak{g} \times \mathfrak{g} \to \mathfrak{g}$$

called the *Lie bracket*, with

- anticommutativity $[x, y] = [-y, x]$,
- the Jacobi idenity

$$[x, [y, z]] + [y, [z, x]] + [z, [x, y]] = 0$$

Theorem 2.0.5. Let $G \subseteq \mathrm{GL}(n, F)$ be a matrix Lie group (where $F = \mathbb{R}$ or $\mathbb{C}$), such that log defines a chart near $I \in G$. Let

$$\mathfrak{g} = \mathrm{T}_I G$$

is identified with a (real) subspace of $\mathrm{Mat}_n(F)$. Then $\mathfrak{g}$ is a Lie algebra, with

$$[x, y] = xy - yx$$

We call $\mathfrak{g}$ the *Lie algebra of* G. We may also write

$$\mathfrak{g} = \mathrm{Lie}(G)$$

Proof. Clearly $\mathfrak{g}$ is a vector space, and $[\cdot, \cdot]$ is anticommutative and satisfies the Jacobi identity. Therefore, all we need to show is that if $x, y \in \mathfrak{g}$, then so is $[x, y]$.

For $B_1, B_2 \in \mathfrak{g}$, consider

$$A(t) = \exp(B_1 t) \exp(B_2 t) \exp(-B_1 t) \exp(-B_2 t)$$

This defines a smooth path in G, with $A(0) = I$. Recall

$$\exp(Bt) = I + Bt + \frac{1}{2} B^2 t^2 + o(t^2)$$

as $t \to 0$. We obtain that

$$A(t) = I + [B_1, B_2]t^2 + o(t^2)$$

Letting $B(t) = \log(A(t))$, for small t, we have that $B(t) = [B_1, B_2]t^2 + o(t^2)$. But we also have that

$$\exp(A(t)) = B(t)$$

Moreover, by definition, $B(t) \in \mathfrak{g}$ for t small, as $B(t)$ is in the image of the logarithm chart. So

$$\frac{B(t)}{t^2} \in \mathfrak{g}$$

as $\mathfrak{g}$ is a vector space. So

$$\lim_{t\to 0} \frac{B(t)}{t^2} = [B_1, B_2] \in \mathfrak{g}$$

since $\mathfrak{g} \leq \mathrm{Mat}_n(F)$ is closed. □

If we take $G = O(n)$, then we have that

$$\mathfrak{g} = \mathfrak{o}(n) = \left\{A \in \mathrm{Mat}_n(\mathbb{R}) \mid A^{\mathsf{T}} + A = 0\right\}$$

is the space of skew-symmetric matrices.

Definition 2.0.6

Let M be a manifold. Then the *tangent bundle of* M is

$$\mathrm{T}M = \bigsqcup_{p\in M} \mathrm{T}_p M$$

Theorem 2.0.7. $\mathrm{T}M$ has a smooth structure, making it into a manifold of dimension $2\dim(M)$.

Proof. The topology on $\mathrm{T}M$ will be induced from the smooth structure. Let (φ, U) be a chart on M. Say the local coordinates corresponding to φ are $x_1, \ldots, x_n$. So we can write $a \in \mathrm{T}_p M$ as

$$\sum a_i \frac{\partial}{\partial x_i}$$

Define

$$U_T = \bigsqcup_{p\in U} \mathrm{T}_p M$$

$$\varphi_T(p, a) = (\varphi(p), (a_i))$$

It is clear that the sets of the form U_T cover, so all we need to check is that the change of coordinate maps are smooth. Let (ψ, V) be another chart on M, with local coordinates y_i. Then

$$\psi \circ \varphi^{-1}(x, a) = (y, b)$$

and it is easy to see that $y = \psi \circ \varphi^{-1}(x)$, and

$$b_i = \sum_j \frac{\partial y_i}{\partial x_j} a_j$$

Hausdorff and second countable follow from the fact that M and $\mathbb{R}^n$ are. □

Lecture 5

We will use the notation $\pi : \mathrm{T}M \to M$ for the canonical projection map

$$\pi(p, a) = p$$

Proposition 2.0.8. The map $\pi : TM \to M$ is smooth.

Proof. In local coordinates given by φ and φ_T, we have

$$\pi(x, a) = x$$

□

Remark 2.0.9. In general, the tangent bundle TM need not be diffeomorphic to $M \times \mathbb{R}^n$.

Definition 2.0.10 ((smooth) vector field)

A *(smooth) vector field* X on a manifold M is a smooth map $X : M \to TM$, such that $\pi(X(p)) = p$. That is, $X(p) \in T_pM$.

Example 2.0.11

$X = 0$ is a vector field. Similarly, X supported on a coordinate neighbourhood is a well defined vector field.

X is C^∞ if and only if for each coordinate neighbourhood U, with local coordinates x_i, we have

$$X = \sum_i a_i(p) \frac{\partial}{\partial x_i}$$

Smoothness of X becomes the requirement that each $a_i : U \to \mathbb{R}$ is smooth.

Theorem 2.0.12. Suppose M^n is a manifold, and $X^{(1)}, \dots, X^{(n)}$ are smooth vector fields on M, such that for all $p \in M$,

$$X^{(1)}(p), \dots, X^{(n)}(p)$$

is a basis for T_pM. Then TM is isomorphic to the product $M \times \mathbb{R}^d$. That is, there exists $\Phi : TM \to M \times \mathbb{R}^n$ is a diffeomorphism, such that

$$\Phi(p, m) = (p, \phi_p(m))$$

and for each fixed p, $\phi_p : T_pM \to \mathbb{R}^n$ is a linear isomorphism.

Manifolds which satisfies the requirements of the theorem are called *parallelisable*.

Proof. For $(p, a) \in TM$, we can write it as

$$a = \sum a_i X^{(i)}(p)$$

for some unique $a_1, \dots, a_n \in \mathbb{R}$. Using this, we can define a map

$$\Phi(p, a) = (p, (a_i)) \in M \times \mathbb{R}^n$$

It is easy to see that this is a bijection. Moreover, ϕ_p defines a linear isomorphism. Therefore, all we need to check is the smoothness. Let $\psi : U \to \mathbb{R}^n$ be a chart on M, and $\psi_T : U_T \to \mathbb{R}^n \times \mathbb{R}^n$ be the corresponding chart on TM. In this case,

$$(\psi \times \mathrm{id}) \circ \Phi \circ \psi_T^{-1}(x, b) = (x, a)$$

such that

$$a = \sum_i a_i X^{(i)}(p) = \sum_j b_j \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x_j} \right)_p$$

We can write $X^{(i)}$ in the $\frac{\partial}{\partial x_j}$ basis, to get

$$X^{(i)} = \sum_j X_j^{(i)} \frac{\partial}{\partial x_j}$$

Thus,

$$b_j = \sum_i a_i X_j^{(i)}(x)$$

Since the $X_j^{(i)}$ are smooth, we are done. Moreover, the inverse transformation is also smooth, and thus Φ defines a local diffeomorphism, which must then be a diffeomorphism. □

Remark 2.0.13.
- The converse of the theorem is also true, and it is easy, since all we need to choose is (the image of) $(x, e_1), \ldots, (x, e_n)$.
- The condition that M is parallelisable is a restriction. We know that all Lie groups are parallelisable, but general manifolds are not. For example, there are no non-vanishing vector fields on S^2. More generally, S^n is parallelisable if and only if $n = 1, 3$ or 7.

Definition 2.0.14 (differential)

Let $F : M \to N$ be a smooth map, Define the *differential of F at $p \in M$* as

$$\begin{aligned} \mathrm{d}F_p : \mathrm{T}_p M &\to \mathrm{T}_{F(p)} N \\ \left.\frac{\partial}{\partial x_i}\right|_p &\mapsto \sum_j \frac{\partial y_i}{\partial x_j}(x(p)) \left.\frac{\partial}{\partial y_j}\right|_{F(p)} \end{aligned}$$

where x_i are local coordinates around p, given by the chart φ, and y_j are local coordinates aroung $F(p)$, given by ψ. In local coordinates, $y = y(x) = \psi \circ F \circ \psi^{-1}(x)$.

Moreover, it is easy to see this is independent of choice of local coordinate, which follows from the chain rule in multivariave calculus.

Remark 2.0.15. For smooth maps $F : M \to N$, $G : N \to P$,

$$\mathrm{d}(G \circ F) = \mathrm{d}G \circ \mathrm{d}F$$

Now suppose $F : M \to N$ is a diffeomorphism, X is a smooth vector field on M. Then the *pushforward of X by F* is

$$((\mathrm{d}F)X)_{F(p)} = (\mathrm{d}F)_p X(p)$$

which defines a vector field on N. We want F^{-1} to be smooth, since otherwise we don't know whether the image will be smooth.

Every vector field X on M defines a linear map

$$X : \mathbb{C}^\infty(M) \to \mathbb{C}^\infty(M)$$

where if

$$X = \sum_i X_i \frac{\partial}{\partial x_i}$$

we define locally

$$Xh = \sum_i X_i \frac{\partial h}{\partial x_i}$$

again by the chain rule, this is independent of choice of coordinates.

Let $f \in C^\infty(N)$, $F : M \to N$ be a diffeomorphism. Then $f \circ F \in C^\infty(M)$. In coordinates x_i on M, y_j on N given by F,

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial x_i}(f \circ F) = \sum_j \frac{\partial f}{\partial y_j} \frac{\partial y_j}{\partial x_i}$$

Therefore,

$$X(f \circ F) = \sum_{i,j} X_i \frac{\partial f}{\partial y_j} \frac{\partial y_j}{\partial x_i} = (((\mathrm{d}F)X)\, f) \circ F$$

That is, the diagram

$$\begin{array}{ccc} C^\infty(N) & \xrightarrow{\cdot \circ F} & C^\infty(M) \\ {\scriptstyle (\mathrm{d}F)X}\downarrow & & \downarrow{\scriptstyle X} \\ C^\infty(N) & \xrightarrow{\cdot \circ F} & C^\infty(M) \end{array}$$

commutes.

Let X, Y be vector fields on M. X and Y can be consider as a first order linear differential operator. Then the composition XY is not, but the *Lie bracket*

$$[X, Y] = XY - YX$$

is a well defined first order linear differential operator. That is, it defines an $\mathbb{R}$-linear map $C^\infty(M) \to C^\infty(M)$, satisfying

$$[X, Y](fg) = f \cdot [X, Y]g + g \cdot [X, Y]f$$

One way to see this is by the symmetry of mixed partial derivatives. Thus, the space of all vector fields on M forms a Lie algebra. Note that it is infinite dimensional, and so it can't come from a Lie group.

Lecture 6

Suppose in local coordinates $X = \sum_i X_i \frac{\partial}{\partial x_i}$ and $Y = \sum_i Y_i \frac{\partial}{\partial x_i}$, then

$$[X, Y] = \sum_{i,j} \left(X_i \frac{\partial Y_j}{\partial x_i} - Y_i \frac{\partial X_j}{\partial x_i} \right) \frac{\partial}{\partial x_k}$$

Notation 2.0.16. We write $V(M)$ for the vector space of all C^∞ vector fields on M.

2.1 Left invariant vector fields

Let G be a Lie group, $e \in G$ is the identity element of G, and $\mathfrak{g} = \mathrm{T}_e G$ for the tangent space of G at e, i.e. its Lie algebra.

Given $g \in G$, we can define the *left translation* $L_g : G \to G$,

$$L_g(h) = gh$$

L_g is a diffeomorphism, as it is smooth with smooth inverse $L_g^{-1} = L_{g^{-1}}$. Consider $\xi \in \mathfrak{g}$, and consider

$$X_\xi(g) = (\mathrm{d}L_g)_e \xi \in \mathrm{T}_g G$$

Since L_g is a diffeomorphism, $(\mathrm{d}L_g)_e$ is a linear isomorphism $\mathfrak{g} \to \mathrm{T}_g G$, with inverse

$$(\mathrm{d}L_g)_e^{-1} = (\mathrm{d}L_{g^{-1}})_g$$

Lemma 2.1.1. $X_\xi(g)$ as defined above, is smooth. Thus, X_ξ is a smooth vector field.

Proof. Consider the map $L : G \times G \to G$, with $L(g, h) = gh$. Then L is smooth. Fix $g_0 \in G$, the local coordinate expression of L in a neighbourhood of (g_0, e) is

$$\widehat{L} : U_{g_0} \times U_e \to V_{g_0}$$

Explicitly, $\widehat{L} = \varphi_{g_0} \circ L \circ (\varphi_{g_0}^{-1} \times \varphi_e^{-1})$. With this,

$$\widehat{L_g} = \widehat{L}(\varphi_{g_0}(g), \cdot) : U_e \to V_{g_0}$$

where g is in a neighbourhood of g_0. With this, consider the derivative $D_2\widehat{L}$ of $\widehat{L}$ in the V_e coordinates. Since $D_2\widehat{L}$ depends smoothly on the V_{g_0} coordinates on L, X_ξ has smooth coefficients in a neighbourhood of g_0. □

Proposition 2.1.2. If $\xi_1, \dots, \xi_n \in \mathfrak{g}$ are linearly independent. That for all $g \in G$,

$$X_{\xi_1}(g), \dots, X_{\xi_n}(g)$$

are linearly independent.

Proof. Clear from definition as $(\mathrm{d}L_g)_e$ is invertible. □

Theorem 2.1.3. Every Lie group is parallelisable.

Proof. From the proposition and theorem 2.0.12. □

Also, consider $g, h \in G$, and $\xi \in \mathfrak{g}$. In this case,

$$(\mathrm{d}L_g)_h X_\xi(h) = (\mathrm{d}L_g)_h (\mathrm{d}L_h)_e(\xi) = (\mathrm{d}L_g \circ \mathrm{d}L_h)_e(\xi) = (\mathrm{d}L_{gh})_e(\xi) = X_\xi(gh)$$

That is,

$$(\mathrm{d}L_g) X_\xi = X_\xi \circ L_g$$

Definition 2.1.4 (left-invariant vector field)
A vector field X on a Lie group G, with

$$(\mathrm{d}L_g) X = X \circ L_g \tag{1}$$

is called a *left-invariant vector field*. We write

$$\ell(G) \subseteq V(G)$$

for the subspace of all left-invariant vector fields on G.

It is easy to see that $\ell(G)$ is finite dimensional, since any $X \in \ell(G)$ is X_ξ for $\xi = X(e) \in \mathfrak{g}$. This also shows that the map $\mathfrak{g} \to \ell(G)$ given by $\xi \mapsto X_\xi$ is a linear isomorphism.

Thus,

$$\dim(\ell(G)) = \dim(\mathfrak{g}) = \dim(G)$$

Theorem 2.1.5. $\ell(G)$ is a Lie subalgebra of $V(G)$. More precisely, $[X_\xi, X_\eta]$ is left invariant for any $\xi, \eta \in \mathfrak{g}$.

Proof. Recall that

$$X(f \circ F) = (((\mathrm{d}F)X)\, f) \circ F$$

We will take $F = L_g$, $f \in C^\infty(G)$, $X = [X_\xi, X_\eta]$. We will show that X satisfies eq. (1).

$$\begin{aligned}
\big((\mathrm{d}L_g)[X_\xi, X_\eta](f)\big) \circ L_g &= [X_\xi, X_\eta](f \circ L_g) \\
&= X_\xi X_\eta (f \circ L_g) - X_\eta X_\xi (f \circ L_g) \\
&= X_\xi \cdot (\mathrm{d}L_g) X_\eta(f) \circ L_g - X_\eta \cdot (\mathrm{d}L_g) X_\xi(f) \circ L_g \\
&= ((\mathrm{d}L_g)X_\xi)((\mathrm{d}L_g)X_\eta)(f) \circ L_g - ((\mathrm{d}L_g)X_\eta)((\mathrm{d}L_g)X_\xi)(f) \circ L_g \\
&= ([(\mathrm{d}L_g)X_\xi, (\mathrm{d}L_g)X_\eta] f) \circ L_g \\
&= [X_\xi \circ L_g, X_\eta \circ L_g](f) \circ L_g \\
&= ([X_\xi, X_\eta] \circ L_g)(f) \circ L_g
\end{aligned}$$

But f, g are arbitrary, and as such, we have

$$(\mathrm{d}L_g)[X_\xi, X_\eta] = [X_\xi, X_\eta] \circ L_g$$

which means that $[X_\xi, X_\eta] \in \ell(G)$. □

With this, for all $\xi, \eta \in \mathfrak{g}$, there exists $\zeta \in \mathfrak{g}$ such that

$$[X_\xi, X_\eta] = X_\eta$$

This defines a Lie algebra structure on $\mathfrak{g}$.

Theorem 2.1.6. Let G be a matrix Lie group and log defines charts on G. Then the map

$$\mathfrak{g} \ni \xi \mapsto X_\xi \in \ell(G)$$

is an isomorphism of Lie algebras, where on $\mathfrak{g}$ we use the matrix commutator.

We will prove this later.

3 Submanifolds

Let M be a manifold, $N \subseteq M$ and N is a manifold. Consider the inclusion map $\iota : N \hookrightarrow M$.

Definition 3.0.1 (embedded submanifold)
Suppose

(i) ι is smooth,

(ii) $(\mathrm{d}\iota)_p : \mathrm{T}_p N \to \mathrm{T}_p M$ is injective for all p,

(iii) ι is a homeomorphism onto its image.

Then we say that N is an *embedded submanifold* of M.

Remark 3.0.2. For (iii), $D \subseteq N$ is open if and only if there exists $U \subseteq M$ open, with $D = D \cap N$.

Lecture 7

The condition (iii) is required, since we don't want an example which looks like a figure-8, or other 'weird' topological spaces, such as





Remark 3.0.3. If ι only satisfies (i) and (ii), we call N an *immersed submanifold*.

Remark 3.0.4. A slight generalisation of this is that: if N, M are manifolds, a map $\psi : N \to M$ is called an *embedding*, denoted $\psi : N \hookrightarrow M$, if ψ is injective, and satisfies conditions (i), (ii) and (iii). That is, $\psi(N) \subseteq M$ is an immersed submanifold.

If $\mathrm{d}\Psi$ is injective for all p, then we call ψ an *immersion*.

Convention: Submanifold will mean embedded submanifold unless otherwise stated.

Example 3.0.5 (parametrised urves and surfaces in $\mathbb{R}^3$)

In this case, condition (ii) simply means what we called a 'regular' parametrisation.

Example 3.0.6 (irrational twist flow)

Define the map

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbb{R} &\to T^2 \\ t &\mapsto (e^{it}, e^{i\alpha t}) \end{aligned}$$

In this case, we see that the map is injective and an immersion, but not an embedding as the image is dense in T^2.

Is a submanifold the same as $f^{-1}(0)$ for some smooth map $f : \mathbb{R}^n \to \mathbb{R}^m$, or more generally, $f^{-1}(p)$ for some $f : M \to N$.

In general, no. Since f is smooth, it is continuous, and so $f^{-1}(p)$ is a closed set. On the other hand,

Proposition 3.0.7. For every closed subset $E \subseteq \mathbb{R}^2$, we can find a smooth map $f : \mathbb{R}^2 \to \mathbb{R}$, such that $f^{-1}(0) = E$.

Proof. Omitted, optional exercise. □

Definition 3.0.8 (regular value)

Let $f : M \to Y$ be a smooth map between manifolds. Then $q \in Y$ is a *regular value* for f if for every $p \in f^{-1}(q)$, $(\mathrm{d}f)_p : \mathrm{T}_pM \to \mathrm{T}_qY$ is surjective.

Theorem 3.0.9 (preimage theorem)**.** Suppose $f : M \to Y$ is a smooth map, $y \in Y$ is a regular value, with $f^{-1}(y)$ nonempty. Then $N = f^{-1}(y)$ is an embedded submanifold of M, with

$$\dim(N) = \dim(M) - \dim(Y)$$

Proof. Omitted. □

A fact from differential topology: Suppose M is a manifold, $N \subseteq M$ a subspace (with the subspace topology). Then there is at most one smooth structure on N making it into an embedded submanifold. Therefore, it makes sense for us to say N is or is not a submanifold.

The converse of the preimage theorem is only true locally.

Proposition 3.0.10. Let $N \hookrightarrow M$ be an embedded submanifold, $p \in N$. Then there exists an open neighbourhood $p \in U \subseteq M$, and $f : U \to \mathbb{R}^d$, $d = \dim(M) - \dim(N)$, with $0 \in \mathbb{R}^d$ is a regular value of f, and $f^{-1}(0) = U \cap f^{-1}(0)$.

Proof. Let $\varphi : U_0 \to \mathbb{R}^n$ be a chart on M near p, with $\varphi(p) = 0$, with local coordinates $x_1, \ldots, x_n$. Let $\psi : V_0 \to \mathbb{R}^\ell$ be a chart on N, $\psi(p) = 0$ and with local coordinates $u_1, \ldots, u_\ell$.

We may assume without loss of generality that $V_0 = U_0 \cap N$. In this case, $\iota : N \hookrightarrow M$ is expressed locally as

$$x_i = x_i(u_1, \ldots, u_\ell)$$

Thus, the rank of the Jacobian matrix

$$\left(\frac{\partial x_i}{\partial u_j}\right)$$

is ℓ, by assumption. Without loss of generality,

$$\det\left(\frac{\partial x_i}{\partial u_j}\right)_{i,j=1}^{\ell} \neq 0$$

From the inverse function theorem from multivariate calculus, we have a local inverse

$$u_i = u_i(x_1, \dots, x_\ell)$$

near 0. Moreover, for $i > \ell$, then $x_i = x_i(u) = x_i(u(x_1, \dots, x_\ell)) = h_i(x_1, \dots, x_\ell)$.

Define $f_i(x) = x_i - h_i(x_1, \dots, x_\ell)$ for $\ell < i < n$. This gives the required map, with Jacobian at 0 given in block form as $\begin{pmatrix} * & I_d \end{pmatrix}$ Thus, 0 is a regular value. □

Example 3.0.11

Consider

$$N = \{(x_0 : x_1 : x_2) \in \mathbb{RP}^2 \mid x_2 = 0\}$$

We can see that $N \hookrightarrow \mathbb{RP}^2$, and $N \cong S^1$. However, it is impossible to write

$$N = f^{-1}(q)$$

for all $f : \mathbb{RP}^2 \to M$ where M is a 1-manifold, $q \in M$ a regular value.

To see this, suppose we found such an f. Then consider a chart Ψ around q on M, $\psi(q) = 0$. Then we have that

$$\psi \circ f : \mathbb{RP}^2 \supseteq U \to (-1, 1)$$

with $N \subseteq U \subseteq \mathbb{RP}^2$, U is open and connected. In this case, we have

$$N = \{p \mid (\psi \circ f)(p) = 0\}$$

As q is a regular value, there exists $p_+, p_- \in U$ such that

$$\psi(f(p_+)) > 0 \quad \text{and} \quad \psi(f(p_-)) < 0$$

But $U \setminus N \subseteq \mathbb{RP}^2 \setminus N$ is connected, since it is either an annulus or a disc.

Theorem 3.0.12 (Whitney embedding theorem)**.** For any manifold M^n, there exists an embedding $\psi : M \hookrightarrow \mathbb{R}^{2n}$.

On the examples sheet, we will show the result for $\mathbb{R}^N$, and with the additional assumption that M is compact. It's not too difficult to show that an embedding into $\mathbb{R}^{2n+1}$ exists, Reducing to $2n$ is the main difficulty in this theorem. Moreover, this result is optimal, for example by considering $\mathbb{RP}^2$ which embeds into $\mathbb{R}^4$ but not $\mathbb{R}^3$.

Lecture 8

Using what we have done so far, we can now prove theorem 2.1.6. That is, for matrix Lie groups, the map

$$\begin{aligned} \mathfrak{g} &\to \ell(G) \\ \xi &\mapsto X_\xi \end{aligned}$$

is a Lie algebra isomorphism.

Proof. We have shown before that $[X_\xi, X_\eta] = X_\zeta$ for some $\zeta \in \mathfrak{g}$. We would like to show that $\zeta = [\xi, \eta] = \xi\eta - \eta\xi$.

First consider the case when $G = \mathrm{GL}(n) \subseteq \mathrm{Mat}(n)$, which is an open subset. In this case, the Lie algebra is $\mathfrak{g} = \mathrm{Mat}(n)$. For $g = (g^i{}_j) \in G$, the left translation map is a linear function in the coordinates $g^i{}_j$. Thus, for $g, h \in \mathrm{GL}(n)$, we have that

$$\begin{aligned} (\mathrm{d}L_g)_h : \mathrm{Mat}(n) &\to \mathrm{Mat}(n) \\ A &\mapsto gA \end{aligned}$$

For $A = (A^i{}_j) \in \mathfrak{g}$, we have that

$$X_A(\mathfrak{g}) = \sum X^i{}_j(g) \frac{\partial}{\partial g^i{}_j}$$

with

$$X^i{}_j(g) = \sum_k g^i{}_k A^k{}_j$$

With this, the claim follows from a computation. That is, (using the summation convention),

$$\begin{aligned} g^i{}_k \left(A^k{}_j \frac{\partial}{\partial g^i{}_j} \left(g^\ell{}_p B^p{}_q \right) - B^k{}_j \frac{\partial}{\partial g^i{}_j} \left(g^\ell{}_p A^p{}_q \right) \right) \frac{\partial}{\partial g^\ell{}_q} &= g^i{}_k \left(A^k{}_j B^j{}_q \delta^i{}_\ell - B^k{}_j A^j{}_q \delta^i{}_\ell \right) \frac{\partial}{\partial g^\ell{}_q} \\ &= g^i{}_k (AB - BA)^k{}_q \frac{\partial}{\partial g^i{}_q} \end{aligned}$$

Using this, we see that

$$[X_A, X_B] = X_{[A,B]}$$

Now note that the change of basis of $\mathfrak{g}$ from the identity chart as above, to the log chart is given by

$$(\mathrm{d}\log)_I = \mathrm{id}$$

Thus, the basis are the same, and so the above computation is valid in the log chart as well.

Now consider a more general group satisfying our assumptions. The log chart assumption shows that $\iota : G \to \mathrm{GL}(n)$ is an immersion. Moreover, $L_g : G \to G$ is a restriction of $L_g : \mathrm{GL}(n) \to \mathrm{GL}(n)$, and its derivative the restriction of $\mathrm{d}L_g : \mathrm{Mat}(n) \to \mathrm{Mat}(n)$.

Using this, for $\xi \in \mathfrak{g}$, the left invariant vector field $X_\xi \in \ell(G)$ is a restriction of $X_\xi \in \ell(\mathrm{GL}(n))$. As such,

$$[X_\xi|_G, X_\eta|_G] = [X_\xi, X_\eta]|_G$$

We can use test functions which is constant in the variables which are transverse to G to see this. But we know that $[X_\xi, X_\eta] = X_{\xi,\eta}$ on $\mathrm{GL}(n)$, and so we have that

$$X_{[\xi,\eta]}|_G = [X_\xi|_G, X_\eta|_G] \in \ell(G)$$

□

4 Differential forms

Let M^n be a manifold, $p \in M$. We have defined the tangent space T_pM. Define the *cotangent space of M at p* to be

$$\mathrm{T}_p^*M = (\mathrm{T}_pM)^* = \left\{ \text{linear maps } \mathrm{T}_pM \to \mathbb{R} \right\}$$

Choosing local coordinates x_i around p, we have a basis

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial x_i} \in \mathrm{T}_pM$$

for T_pM. This gives us a dual basis, which we will denote as

$$\mathrm{d}x_i \in \mathrm{T}_p^*M$$

That is,

$$\left\langle \mathrm{d}x_i, \frac{\partial}{\partial x_j} \right\rangle := \mathrm{d}x_i \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x_j} \right) = \delta_{ij}$$

For any $a \in \mathrm{T}_p^*M$, we have that

$$a = \sum_i a_i \mathrm{d}x_i$$

for $a_I \in \mathbb{R}$. Recall if y_i is a different choice of local coordinates, then

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial y_j} = \sum_i \frac{\partial x_i}{\partial y_j} \frac{\partial}{\partial x_i}$$

Then by standard linear algebra arguments,

$$dx_i = \sum_j \frac{\partial x_i}{\partial y_j} dy_j$$

Thus, for

$$a = \sum a_i dx_i = \sum b_i dy_i \in T_p^* M$$

we have that

$$b_j = \sum_i a_i \frac{\partial x_i}{\partial y_j}$$

We can define the *cotangent bundle of* M, as

$$TM = \bigsqcup_{p \in M} T_p^* M$$

Theorem 4.0.1. T^*M is a smooth manifold, with $\dim(T^*M) = 2\dim(M)$. Again, we have a projection map $\pi : T^*M \to M$, with $\pi(p, a) = p$, which is a smooth map.

Proof. As for the tangent bundle. The only difference is the transformation law. □

Definition 4.0.2 (differential 1-form)
A *((smooth) differential)* 1*-form* α on M, is by definition a smooth map $\alpha : M \to T^*M$, such that $\pi \circ \alpha = \mathrm{id}$. That is, for all $p \in M$, $\alpha(p) \in T_p^* M$.

As for vector fields, in local coordinates x_i, we have that

$$\alpha|_U = \sum_i \alpha_i(p) dx_i$$

where $\alpha_i \in C^\infty(U)$. This is equivalent to saying that

$$\langle \alpha, X \rangle \in C^\infty(M)$$

for all $X \in V(M)$. To see this, note that

$$\left\langle \alpha, \frac{\partial}{\partial x_i} \right\rangle = \alpha_i$$

We will now recall/define some multilinear algebra. For $r = 0, 1, 2, \ldots$, and a vector space V, define the *r-th exterior power of* V^* as

$$\Lambda^r V^* = \left\{ \text{alternating multilinear maps } \underbrace{V \times \cdots \times V}_{r \text{ copies}} \to \mathbb{R} \right\}$$

In particular, if $r = 0$, by convention $\Lambda^0 V^* = \mathbb{R}$, and if $r = 1$, $\Lambda^1 V^* = V^*$. If $r > \dim(V)$, then $\Lambda^r V^* = 0$.

From this, we obtain the vector spaces $\Lambda^r T_p^* M$, and we can define the *r-th exterior power of* T^*M as

$$\Lambda^r T^* M = \bigsqcup_{p \in M} \Lambda^r T_p^* M$$

Consider a smooth map $\alpha : M \to \Lambda^r T^* M$, with $\pi \circ \alpha = \mathrm{id}$. We call α a *differential r-form*.

Lecture 9

This is a vector space, with dimension $\dim(\Lambda^r T_p^* M) = \binom{n}{r}$. To see this, we can consider the basis

$$dx_{i_1} \wedge \cdots \wedge dx_{i_r} \text{ with } 1 \le i_1 < \cdots < i_r \le n$$

By definition,

$$(dx_{i_1} \wedge \cdots \wedge dx_{i_r})(v_1, \ldots, v_r) := \det\left((dx_{i_k}(v_\ell))_{k,\ell}\right)$$

In particular, we see that $\wedge$ is antisymmetric, and this extends by linearity and induction on p, q, to extend it to an assosiative bilinear product

$$\Lambda^p T_x^* M \times \Lambda^q T_x^* M \to \Lambda^{p+q} T_x^* M$$

Notation 4.0.3 (multi-index notation). If $I = (i_1, \dots, i_r)$, then we write $|I| = r$, and

$$dx_I = dx_{i_1} \wedge \cdots \wedge dx_{i_r}$$

The transformation law from dx_I to dy_J is given by

$$dy_J = \sum_{|I|=r} \left(\prod_{k=1}^{r} \frac{\partial y_{j_k}}{\partial x_{i_k}} \right) dx_I$$

Using this, we can show that $\Lambda^r T^*M$ is a smooth manifold, with dimension $n + \binom{n}{r}$. The projection map $\pi : \Lambda^r T^*M \to M$ is smooth, and we call $\Lambda^r T^*M$ the *bundle of r-forms*.

Definition 4.0.4 (smooth differential r-form)

A *((smooth) differential) r-form* is a section α of $\Lambda^r T^*M$. The *degree* of α is r.

Note that α as above is smooth if and only if for any $X_1, \dots, X_r$ vector fields on M, $\alpha(X_1, \dots, X_n) = 0$. In local coordinates, we can write

$$\alpha = \sum_{|I|=r} \alpha_I dx_I$$

where the α_I are smooth functions.

Definition 4.0.5 (space of r-forms)

For a manifold M, we write $\Omega^r(M)$ for the space of all r-forms on M. By convention, $\Omega^0(M) = C^\infty(M)$.

4.1 Orientability

Theorem 4.1.1. For any n-dimensional manifold, the following are equivalent:

(a) There exists a nowhere vanishing $\omega \in \Omega^n(M)$.

(b) There exists a collection of coordinate charts $(\varphi_\alpha, U_\alpha)$ such that

- $\bigcup_\alpha U_\alpha = M$,
- for α, β with corresponding coordinates x_i, y_j, we have

$$\det \left(\frac{\partial y_j}{\partial x_i} \right) > 0$$

(c) $\Lambda^n T^*M$ is isomorphic to $M \times \mathbb{R}$.

Proof. **(a) $\implies$ (b):** From the transformation law and taking $r = n$, we see that

$$\begin{aligned} dx_1 \wedge \cdots \wedge dx_n &= \left(\sum_{i_1} \frac{\partial x_1}{\partial y_{i_1}} dy_{i_1} \right) \wedge \cdots \wedge \left(\sum_{i_n} \frac{\partial x_n}{\partial y_{i_n}} dy_{i_n} \right) \\ &= \left(\sum_{\sigma \in S_n} \operatorname{sign}(\sigma) \frac{\partial x_1}{\partial y_{\sigma(1)}} \cdots \frac{\partial x_n}{\partial y_{\sigma(n)}} \right) \\ &= \det \left(\frac{\partial x_i}{\partial y_j} \right) dy_1 \wedge \cdots \wedge dy_n \end{aligned}$$

Given ω as in (a), consider an open cover by coordinate neighbourhoods U_α, with all U_α connected. In this case,

$$\omega|_{U_\alpha} = f_\alpha(x) dx_1^\alpha \wedge \cdots \wedge dx_n^\alpha$$

We can assume without loss of generality that $f_\alpha > 0$ on each coordinate neighbourhood, but then

$$f_\alpha = \det\left(\frac{\partial x_i^\alpha}{\partial x_j^\beta}\right) f_\beta$$

and so the determinant must be positive.

(b) $\implies$ **(a)**: We will assume the following theorem without proof:

Theorem 4.1.2. For every open cover $M = \bigcup_\alpha U_\alpha$, we can find a countable collection of smooth functions $\rho_i \in C^\infty(M)$, such that

(i) $\operatorname{supp}(\rho_i)$ is compact, and contained in some U_α,

(ii) the ρ_i are locally finite, that is, given $x \in M$, there exists a neighbourhood W_x of x, such that all but finitely many ρ_i are identically zero on W_x.

(iii) $\rho_i(x) \in [0,1]$, and for any $x \in M$,

$$\sum_i \rho_i(x) = 1$$

We call $\{\rho_i\}$ a *partition of unity subordinate to* U_α.

For any α, define $\omega_\alpha = \mathrm{d}x_1^\alpha \wedge \cdots \wedge \mathrm{d}x_n^\alpha \in \Omega^n(U_\alpha)$. By passing to a subcollection, we may assume we only have countably many α, and say we have a parition of unity ρ_α subordinate to $\{U_\alpha\}$. Then

$$\rho_\alpha \omega_\alpha \in \Omega^n(M)$$

and using this, we can define

$$\omega = \sum \rho_\alpha \omega_\alpha$$

Since the sum is locally finite, ω is well defined. Moreover, since the ρ_α are nonnegative, and

$$\det\left(\frac{\partial x_i^\alpha}{\partial x_j^\beta}\right) > 0$$

ω never vanishes.

For **(c)** $\implies$ **(a)**, suppose we have an isomorphism $\Phi : \Lambda^n \mathrm{T}^*M \to M \times \mathbb{R}$ of vector bundles, consider $f : M \to M \times \mathbb{R}$, given by $f(x) = (x, 1)$. Then $\Phi^{-1} \circ f \in \Omega^n(M)$ never vanishes.

Conversely, given a non-zero ω, notice for any $(p, \xi) \in \Lambda^n \mathrm{T}^*M$, there exists a_ξ such that $\xi = a_\xi \omega(p)$. Thus, we can define

$$\Phi(p, \xi) = (\pi(\xi), a_\xi)$$

We leave as an exercise to check that Φ is a diffeomorphism. □

Definition 4.1.3 (orientable)

A manifold M satisfying any of the conditions in the above theorem is called *orientable*.

Suppose M is connected. then there are *two* choices of *orientation*, given by respectively:

(a) ω up to rescaling by a positive function,

(b) a choice of an open up to 'positive compatibility'.

(c) a choice of Φ up to compositions $(x, a) \mapsto (x, h(x)a)$, where $h \in C^\infty(M)$ is positive.

Definition 4.1.4 (oriented)

A manifold M with a choice of orientation is called *oriented*.

4.2 Exterior derivative

Consider $f \in C^\infty(M)$. Formally, it is a smooth map $f : M \to \mathbb{R}$ between manifolds, and so we have a differential

$$\mathrm{d}f_p : \mathrm{T}_pM \to \mathrm{T}_{f(p)}\mathbb{R} = \mathbb{R}$$

which depends on p in a smooth way. Then

$$\mathrm{d}f \in \Omega^1(M)$$

Remark 4.2.1. A coordinate $x_i : U \to \mathbb{R}$ is a smooth function, and so $\mathrm{d}x_i$ is a 1-form.

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Theorem 4.2.2. There exists a unique $\mathbb{R}$-linear map $\mathrm{d} : \Omega^k(M) \to \Omega^{k+1}(M)$, determined by

(i) If $f \in \Omega^0(M) = C^\infty(M)$, then $\mathrm{d}f$ is just the differential. That is,

$$\mathrm{d}f = \sum_i \frac{\partial f}{\partial x_i}\mathrm{d}x_i$$

(ii) $\mathrm{d}(\omega \wedge \eta) = (\mathrm{d}\omega) \wedge \eta + (-1)^{\deg(\omega)}\omega \wedge \mathrm{d}\eta$

(iii) $\mathrm{d}^2 = 0$.

The map d is called the *exterior derivative*.

Proof. Consider a coordinate neighbourhood $U \subseteq M$, with coordinates x_i. Consider $\omega \in \Omega^r(M)$, with

$$\omega|_U = f(x)\mathrm{d}x_I$$

We can assume this since d is linear. By (ii), (iii) and then (i),

$$\begin{aligned}\mathrm{d}(\omega|_U) = \mathrm{d}(f(x)\mathrm{d}x_I) &= \mathrm{d}f \wedge \mathrm{d}x_I + f(x)\sum_{k=1}^{r}\left(\cdots \wedge (-1)^{k-1}\mathrm{d}\mathrm{d}x_{i_k} \wedge \cdots\right) \\ &= \sum_{i=1}^{m}\frac{\partial f}{\partial x_i}\mathrm{d}x_i \wedge \mathrm{d}x_I \qquad (*)\end{aligned}$$

Using this definition, (i) is clear, (ii) can be verified by a computation, and (iii) follows from the symmetry of mixed partial derivatives, since

$$\frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x_i \partial x_j} = \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x_j \partial x_i}$$

we have that

$$\sum_{i,j}\frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x_i \partial x_j}\mathrm{d}x_i \wedge \mathrm{d}x_j = 0$$

Using this, we have shown uniqueness since it is well defined and unique with respect to anny choice of local coordinates. To show existence, we need to show that it is well defined with respect to a change of coordinates. But by $(*)$, $(\mathrm{d}\omega)_p$ is determined by ω restricted to any neighbourhood of p.

Thus, to show that d is well defined, it suffices to consider the intersection of coordinate neighbourhoods. Let y_i be the other coordinates. The same computation as above gives an operator δ. We want to show that $\delta = \mathrm{d}$. With this,

$$\delta(f(x)\mathrm{d}x_I) = \delta f \wedge \mathrm{d}x_I + \sum_k \left(\cdots \wedge (-1)^{k-1}\delta\mathrm{d}x_{i_k} \wedge \cdots\right)$$

Now $\delta f = \mathrm{d}f$ as the differential is well defined, and $\delta(x_{i_k}) = \mathrm{d}x_{i_k}$ as well. Thus, $\delta\mathrm{d}x_{i_k} = \delta^2 x_{i_k} = 0$. With this, we find that

$$\delta(f(x)\mathrm{d}x_I) = \mathrm{d}f \wedge \mathrm{d}x_I$$

as required. □

Definition 4.2.3 (pullback)

Let $f : M \to N$ be a smooth map between manifolds. Then we have a map

$$f^* : \mathrm{T}^*_{f(p)}N \to \mathrm{T}^*_p M$$

and more generally, we have

$$f^* : \Omega^r(N) \to \Omega^r(M)$$

which we call the *pullback map of* f. By definition,

$$(f^*\alpha)_p(v_1, \ldots, v_r) = \alpha_{f(p)}((\mathrm{d}f)_p v_1, \ldots, (\mathrm{d}f)_p v_r)$$

for every r-form α on N, $p \in M$, $v_1, \ldots, v_r \in \mathrm{T}_p M$.

Remark 4.2.4.

- f^* is defined for any smooth map. Compare this to the pushforward of vector fields, which is defined only when f is a diffeomorphism.
- $(f \circ g)^* = g^* \circ f^*$.
- $f^*(\alpha \wedge \beta) = f^*(\alpha) \wedge f^*(\beta)$. In particular, for any $h \in C^\infty(N)$, $f^*(h\alpha) = (h \circ f) f^*\alpha$. That is, f^* is $C^\infty(\cdot)$-linear.
- $\mathrm{d}(f^*\alpha) = f^*(\mathrm{d}\alpha)$. To see this, it suffices to do this in local coordinates, i.e. we can take M, N to be open subsets of Euclidean space. Moreover, we can assume $\alpha = \mathrm{d}y_j$, $v = \frac{\partial}{\partial x_k}$, since we know both operators are $\mathbb{R}$-linear, and we can use the Leibniz rule to extend to general r-forms. In this case, f becomes $y_j = y_j(x)$, and we have that

  $$(f^*\mathrm{d}y_j)\left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x_k}\right) = \mathrm{d}y_j\left((\mathrm{d}f)\frac{\partial}{\partial x_k}\right) = \mathrm{d}y_j\left(\sum_\ell \frac{\partial y_\ell}{\partial x_k}\frac{\partial}{\partial y_\ell}\right) = \frac{\partial y_j}{\partial x_k}$$

  We see that f^* is determined by

  $$f^*\mathrm{d}y_j = \sum_{k=1}^n \frac{\partial y_j}{\partial x_k}\mathrm{d}x_k = \mathrm{d}\big(y_j \circ f\big) = \mathrm{d}\big(f^* y_j\big)$$

4.3 de Rham cohomology

We will write d_r for $\mathrm{d} : \Omega^r(M) \to \Omega^{r+1}(M)$. That is, we have

$$0 \longrightarrow \Omega^0(M) \xrightarrow{\mathrm{d}_0} \Omega^1(M) \xrightarrow{\mathrm{d}_1} \Omega^2(M) \xrightarrow{\mathrm{d}_2} \cdots$$

If $\alpha = \mathrm{d}\beta$, then $\mathrm{d}\alpha = 0$. The converse may not hold. We can use this:

Definition 4.3.1 (exact form)

If $\alpha = \mathrm{d}\beta$ for some β, we say that α is *exact*. Equivalently, $\alpha \in \mathrm{im}(\mathrm{d}_r)$ for some r.

Definition 4.3.2 (closed form)

If $\alpha \in \ker(\mathrm{d}_r)$, then we say that α is *exact*.

Since $\mathrm{d}^2 = 0$, $\mathrm{im}(\mathrm{d}_{r-1}) \subseteq \ker(\mathrm{d}_r)$. Moreover, it is a vector subspace.

Definition 4.3.3 (de Rham cohomology)

The vector space

$$\mathrm{H}^r(M) = \frac{\ker(\mathrm{d}_r)}{\mathrm{im}(\mathrm{d}_{r-1})}$$

is called the *r-th de Rham cohomology group of M*. We write

$$\mathrm{H}^* = \bigoplus_r \mathrm{H}^r(M)$$

Proposition 4.3.4. If $f : M \to N$ is smooth, the pullback $f^* : \Omega^r(N) \to \Omega^r(M)$ descends to the quotient, i.e. we have a homomorphism

$$f^* : \mathrm{H}^r(N) \to \mathrm{H}^r(M)$$

Moreover, as for pullback of forms,

$$(g \circ f^*) = f^* \circ g^*$$

Proof. This follows from $f^*\mathrm{d} = \mathrm{d}f^*$ (i.e. f^* is a chain map). □

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In particular, if f is a diffeomorphism, then $f^* : \mathrm{H}^*(N) \to \mathrm{H}^*(M)$ is an isomorphism. The converse is false, for example

$$\mathrm{H}^*(\mathbb{RP}^3) \cong \mathrm{H}^*(S^3)$$

but they are diffeomorphic (not even homeomorphic, for example consider π_1).

Theorem 4.3.5 (de Rham)**.**

$$\mathrm{H}^r_{\mathrm{dR}}(M) \cong \mathrm{H}^r(M; \mathbb{R})$$

where the right hand side is the singular cohomology of M as a topological space, with real coefficients.

If M is connected, then $\mathrm{H}^0(M) = \mathbb{R}$, as it is just the space of constant functions (i.e. functions with zero differential).

Theorem 4.3.6 (Poincaré lemma)**.** Suppose $U \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$ is an open ball, $\alpha \in \Omega^k(U)$, for some $k > 0$, with $\mathrm{d}\alpha = 0$. Then α is exact, that is, we can find $\beta \in \Omega^{k-1}(U)$, with $\alpha = \mathrm{d}\beta$.

Corollary 4.3.7.

$$\mathrm{H}^k(U) = \begin{cases} \mathbb{R} & k = 0 \\ 0 & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$$

Sketch proof of theorem 4.3.6. The main idea is to invert the exterior derivative d, by constructing appropriate integral operators,

$$h_k : \Omega^k(U) \to \Omega^{k-1}(U)$$

with

$$h_{k+1} \circ \mathrm{d}_k + \mathrm{d}_{k-1} \circ h_k = \mathrm{id}_{\Omega^k(U)}$$

That is, h defines a homotopy between id and the zero map on the de Rham cochain complex. □

4.4 Integration

Throughout, assume M is a oriented n-manifold, with orientation given by positively oriented charts $(U_\alpha, \varphi_\alpha)$.

Let $\omega \in \Omega^n(M)$, and suppose $\mathrm{supp}(\omega)$ is compact[1]. If $\mathrm{supp}(\omega) \subseteq U_\alpha$ for some α, with local coordinates x_i, then we can write

$$\omega|_{U_\alpha} = f(x)\mathrm{d}x_1 \wedge \cdots \wedge \mathrm{d}x_n$$

[1] This is different to lectures, but I'll use the definition that

$$\mathrm{supp}(\omega) = \overline{\{p \in M \mid \omega(p) \neq 0\}}$$

In this case, we define

$$\int_M \omega = \int_{\varphi_\alpha(U_\alpha)} f(x)\mathrm{d}x_1 \cdots \mathrm{d}x_n$$

where the right hand side is the integral over a subset of $\mathbb{R}^n$, i.e. Riemann/Lebesgue integration.

To see that this is well defined, suppose $\mathrm{supp}(\omega) \subseteq U_\beta$, and U_β has local coordinates y_j, then

$$\omega|_{U_\beta} = h(y)\mathrm{d}y_1 \wedge \cdots \wedge \mathrm{d}y_n$$

In this case,

$$\begin{aligned}\int_{\varphi_\beta(U_\beta)} h(y)\mathrm{d}y_1 \cdots \mathrm{d}y_n &= \int_{\varphi_\alpha(U_\alpha)} h(y(x))\left|\det\left(\frac{\partial y_i}{\partial x_j}\right)\right|\mathrm{d}x_1 \cdots \mathrm{d}x_n \\ &= \int_{\varphi_\alpha(U_\alpha)} h(y(x))\det\left(\frac{\partial y_i}{\partial x_j}\right)\mathrm{d}x_1 \cdots \mathrm{d}x_n \\ &= \int_{\varphi_\alpha(U_\alpha)} f(x)\mathrm{d}x_1 \wedge \cdots \wedge \mathrm{d}x_n\end{aligned}$$

For more general n-forms with compact support, use a parition of unity $\{\rho_i\}$ subordinate to a finite cover $\{U_i\}$ of $\mathrm{supp}(\omega)$ by coordinate patches $U_1, \ldots, U_N$. Let $U_0 = M \setminus \mathrm{supp}(\omega)$.

Definition 4.4.1 (integral of a differential form)

The *integral of* ω is

$$\int_M \omega = \sum_{i=1}^N \int_{U_i} \rho_i \omega$$

Basic properties:

- it is linear in ω,
- it is additive when we integrate over disjoint coordinate neighbourhoods,
- it is independent of the choice of a parition of unity. If $\{\tilde{\rho}_j\}$ is a different partition of unity, then

$$\sum_i \int_{U_i} \rho_i \omega = \sum_{i,j} \int_{U_i} \rho_i \tilde{\rho}_j \omega = \sum_{i,j} \int_{U_i \cap \tilde{U}_j} \rho_i \tilde{\rho}_j \omega$$

  Swapping ρ_i and $\tilde{\rho}_j$ gives the same result, and so we are done.

Theorem 4.4.2 (Stoke's for manifolds without boundary)**.** If $\eta \in \Omega^{n-1}(M)$ is compactly supported, then

$$\int_M \mathrm{d}\eta = 0$$

Note η being compactly supported implies $\mathrm{d}\eta$ is compactly supported, but the converse is false.

Proof. As above, let $U_1, \ldots, U_N$ be a positively oriented coordinate neighbourhoods covering $\mathrm{supp}(\eta)$, and let $U_0 = M \setminus \mathrm{supp}(\eta)$, which is positively oriented with respect to $U_1, \ldots, U_N$. Choose a partition of unity subordinate to $\{U_0, \ldots, U_N\}$. Then

$$\mathrm{d}\eta = \mathrm{d}\left(\sum_{i=1}^N \rho_i \eta\right) = \sum_{i=1}^N \mathrm{d}(\rho_i \eta)$$

By additivity, suffices to show

$$\int_M \mathrm{d}(\rho_i \eta) = 0$$

Fix i, and choose local coordinates x_k on U_i. Without loss of generality,

$$\rho_i \eta = h(x) \mathrm{d}x_2 \wedge \cdots \mathrm{d}x_n$$

We can do this as the integral is linear. Then

$$\mathrm{d}(\rho_i \eta) = \frac{\partial h}{\partial x_i} \mathrm{d}x_1 \wedge \cdots \mathrm{d}x_n$$

Integrating, choose R large enough such that

$$\begin{aligned}
\int_{\mathbb{R}^n} \mathrm{d}(\rho_i \eta) &= \int_{\mathbb{R}^{n-1}} \left(\int_{x_1=-R}^{R} \frac{\partial h}{\partial x_1} \mathrm{d}x_1 \right) \mathrm{d}x_2 \cdots \mathrm{d}x_n \\
&= \int_{\mathbb{R}^{n-1}} h(R, x_2, \ldots, x_n) - h(-R, x_2, \ldots, x_n) \mathrm{d}x_2 \cdots \mathrm{d}x_n \\
&= 0
\end{aligned}$$

as we can assume $h(R, x_2, \ldots, x_n) = h(-R, x_2, \ldots, x_n) = 0$. □

Corollary 4.4.3 (integration by parts). Assume α, β are differential forms on M, at least one is compactly supported, with $\deg(\alpha) + \deg(\beta) = \dim(M) - 1$. Then

$$\int_M \alpha \wedge \mathrm{d}\beta = (-1)^{\deg(\alpha)+1} \int_M (\mathrm{d}\alpha) \wedge \beta$$

Proof. Apply Stokes to $\eta = \alpha \wedge \beta$, which is compactly supported. □

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